

Discrete Structures

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Contents

1	Introduction : Propositions	3
1.1	Propositions	3
1.2	Combining Propositions	3
1.3	Truth Tables!	3
1.3.1	Important logical equivalences	4
1.3.2	Operator Precedence	4
1.4	Negation, Converse and Contrapositive	5
1.5	Quantifiers	6
2	Theorems and Proofs	7
2.1	Examples of some proofs	7
2.2	Mathematical Induction as an Axiom	12
2.3	The Well Ordering Principle	12
2.4	Induction as a theorem : WOP implies Induction	13
3	Basic Structures : Sets and Functions	17
3.1	Sets	17
3.2	Some properties of sets	17
3.3	Functions	18
3.3.1	Functions on finite sets	18
3.3.2	Some important theorems : True for both finite and infinite sets	19
3.4	Infinite Sets	19

3.4.1	Definition of Infinite Set	19
3.4.2	Important Takeaways	20
3.5	Some Important Bijections on Infinite Sets	20
3.5.1	Bijection from $\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$	20
3.5.2	Bijection from $\mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$	20
3.5.3	Bijection from $\mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N}$	20
3.5.4	Bijection from $\mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$	21
3.5.5	Bijection from $\mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N}$	21
3.5.6	Proving the inexistence of a bijection	21
3.5.7	Proving the existence of a bijection	22
3.5.8	Cartesian product of countable sets	22
3.5.9	Are Rationals countable??	22
3.6	Cantor's Theorem and Cantor's Continuum Hypothesis	23
3.7	Relations	24
3.7.1	Partitions of a set	24
3.7.2	Relation generated by partitions	24
3.7.3	Equivalence Classes	25
3.7.4	Defining new Objects through equivalence relations	25
4	Basic Structures : Posets	27
4.1	Anti-Symmetry	27
4.2	Partial Orders	27
4.3	Partially Ordered Sets : Posets	28
4.3.1	Graphical Representation of a Poset	28
4.4	Chains and Anti-Chains	29
4.4.1	Chains	29
4.4.2	Anti-Chains	30
4.5	Topological Sort	30

1 Introduction : Propositions

1.1 Propositions

A proposition is a statement which is either true or false (but not both).

Ex :- "It is raining in Mumbai today!!!" is a proposition, most probably true :(

Ex :- $x + 3 = 8$ is not a proposition, as it cannot be determined to be true or false without fixing a value for x .

Similarly, since we use variables $x, y, z, \dots$ for numbers, we will use $p, q, r, \dots$ for propositions.

1.2 Combining Propositions

The propositions can be combined using Boolean operators such as $\neg$, $\wedge$, $\vee$, $\rightarrow$, $\longleftrightarrow$, etc.

p : It is raining

$\neg p$: It is not raining

q : I will go to class

$p \wedge \neg q$: It is raining and I will not go to class

$\neg p \rightarrow q$: If it is not raining then I will go to class

1.3 Truth Tables!

A Truth Table is a table that lists all the possible combinations of inputs and their corresponding outputs. For example:

p	q	$p \wedge q$
0	0	0
0	1	0
1	0	0
1	1	1

Table 1: Truth table for $p \wedge q$

p	q	$p \vee q$
0	0	0
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	1

Table 2: Truth table for $p \vee q$

p	q	$p \oplus q$
0	0	0
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	0

Table 3: Truth table for $p \oplus q$

1.3.1 Important logical equivalences

Logical equivalence means that the truth tables of two statements are identical. Some important logical equivalences are:

- $p \rightarrow q$ is equivalent to $\neg p \vee q$
- $p \longleftrightarrow q$ is equivalent to $(p \rightarrow q) \wedge (q \rightarrow p)$

1.3.2 Operator Precedence

The Operator Precedence of the Logical Operators follow the given order:

$\neg$ then $\wedge$ then $\vee$ then $\rightarrow$ then $\longleftrightarrow$

Eg: Construct the truth table for $(p \vee \neg q) \rightarrow (p \wedge q)$

p	q	$\neg q$	$p \vee \neg q$	$p \wedge q$	$(p \vee \neg q) \rightarrow (p \wedge q)$
0	0	1	1	0	0
0	1	0	0	0	1
1	0	1	1	0	0
1	1	0	1	1	1

Table 4: Truth table for $(p \vee \neg q) \rightarrow (p \wedge q)$

1.4 Negation, Converse and Contrapositive

Take the following propositions:

p : It will rain today

q : The match will be canceled

$p \rightarrow q$: If it will rain today then the match will be canceled

The negation of an implication is given as:

$$\neg(p \rightarrow q) \equiv \neg(\neg p \vee q) \equiv p \wedge \neg q$$

For the above statements:

$\neg(p \rightarrow q)$: It will rain today and the match will not be canceled

The converse of an implication is given as:

$$\text{Converse of } (p \rightarrow q) \text{ is } (q \rightarrow p)$$

For the above statements:

$q \rightarrow p$: If the match will be canceled then it will rain today

The contrapositive of an implication is given as:

Contrapositive of $(p \rightarrow q)$ is $(\neg q \rightarrow \neg p)$

For the above statements:

$\neg q \rightarrow \neg p$: If the match won't be canceled then it won't rain today.

$p \rightarrow q \equiv \neg q \rightarrow \neg p$, that is an implication is logically equivalent to its contrapositive.

1.5 Quantifiers

Quantifiers are additional statements that provide context-specific information, such as the domain of discourse. Some common quantifiers are the following.

- $\forall n$ stands for all values of n in the given domain
- $\exists n$ stands for there exists a value of n in the given domain
- $\in$ is "the element of" symbol

The negation of $\forall$ is $\exists$ and vice versa.

Ex : The negation of $\forall x P(x)$ is $\exists x \neg P(x)$

Ex : The negation of $\forall x (x^2 \geq x)$ is $\exists x (x^2 < x)$

2 Theorems and Proofs

A theorem is a proposition that can be proved or disproved. At the basic level, there are two basic methods of proving theorems, Induction and Contradiction.

2.1 Examples of some proofs

Theorem 1. *For all $x \in \mathbb{N}$, x is even $\longleftrightarrow x + x^2 - x^3$ is even.*

Proof. The proof proceeds in two directions.

- Forward direction : $\forall x \in \mathbb{N}$, x is even $\rightarrow x + x^2 - x^3$ is even.

Let $x \in \mathbb{N}$ and x be even.

So, $\exists k \in \mathbb{N}$, $x = 2k$.

$$\text{Then, } x + x^2 - x^3 = 2k + (2k)^2 - (2k)^3 = 2k + 4k^2 - 8k^3 = 2(k + 2k^2 - 4k^3) = 2m$$

where, $m = k + 2k^2 - 4k^3$, thus $m \in \mathbb{Z}$, ie, $2 \mid x + x^2 - x^3$.

So, $x + x^2 - x^3$ is even.

- Reverse direction : $\forall x \in \mathbb{N}$, $x + x^2 - x^3$ is even $\rightarrow x$ is even.

It is easier to prove the contrapositive,

$$\forall x \in \mathbb{N}, x \text{ is odd} \rightarrow x + x^2 - x^3 \text{ is odd.}$$

Let $x \in \mathbb{N}$ and x be odd.

So, $\exists k \in \mathbb{N}$, $x = 2k + 1$.

Then $x + x^2 - x^3 = (2k + 1) + (2k + 1)^2 - (2k + 1)^3 = (2k + 1) + (4k^2 + 4k + 1) - (8k^3 + 12k^2 + 6k + 1) = (-8k^3 - 8k^2 + 1) = 2m + 1$ where $m = -4k^3 - 4k^2$, thus $m \in \mathbb{Z}$, i.e. $x + x^2 - x^3$ is odd.

So, $x + x^2 - x^3$ is odd.

Hence, Proved. □

Theorem 2. *There are infinitely many primes.*

Proof. Suppose that there are finitely many primes, say, $p_1 < p_2 < p_3 < \dots < p_n$. We call the set of those primes $\mathbb{S}$.

Now, let $k = (p_1 p_2 p_3 \dots p_n) + 1$.

Then, k when divided by any p_r returns a remainder of 1. So k is not divisible by any of the p_r 's.

Also, $k > 1$ and $k > p_n$, so k must not be prime. So, by the fundamental theorem of arithmetic, k can be written as a product of primes.

Now take any prime p in that product. Since p divides k , therefore $p \neq p_i$ for any $i \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$.

So p is a prime that is not in $\mathbb{S}$. But this contradicts our assumption that $\mathbb{S}$ is the set of all primes.

This means that our assumption was wrong, and thus, there are infinitely many primes. □

Theorem 3. $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational.

Proof. Let us assume, for the sake of contradiction, that $\sqrt{2}$ is rational.

That is,

$$\sqrt{2} = \frac{p}{q}$$

for some

$$p, q \in \mathbb{N}, q \neq 0$$

where p and q are co-prime.

Then,

$$\begin{aligned} 2 &= \frac{p^2}{q^2} \\ p^2 &= 2q^2 \end{aligned}$$

Thus p^2 is divisible by 2. Since 2 is prime, this implies that p is divisible by 2. So,

$$\exists k \in \mathbb{N}, p = 2k$$

$$\begin{aligned} (2k)^2 &= 2q^2 \\ 4k^2 &= 2q^2 \\ q^2 &= 2k^2 \end{aligned}$$

Thus q^2 is divisible by 2. Since 2 is prime, this implies that q is divisible by 2.

Thus, both p and q are divisible by 2. This contradicts the statement that p and q are co-prime. So, our assumption that $\sqrt{2}$ is rational is false.

So, $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational. □

Theorem 4. *There exist irrational numbers x and y , such that x^y is rational.*

Proof. We have already proved that $\sqrt{2}$ is irrational.

Let $x = y = \sqrt{2}$, consider $z = x^y$.

- If z is rational, then we have found a pair of irrational (x, y) such that x^y is rational.
- If z is irrational, then let $x = z$ and $y = \sqrt{2}$. Then, $x^y = ((\sqrt{2})^{\sqrt{2}})^{\sqrt{2}} = (\sqrt{2})^2 = 2$, which is rational, then we have found a pair of irrational (x, y) such that x^y is rational.

□

The above proof is a non-constructive proof. It establishes that a mathematical object exists without providing a method to construct or identify it. Such proof techniques are quite powerful.

Theorem 5. 21 divides $4^{n+1} + 5^{2n-1}$ whenever $n \in \mathbb{Z}^+$.

Proof. • Base Case: For $n = 1$

$$4^{n+1} + 5^{2n-1} = 4^2 + 5^1 = 16 + 5 = 21 = 21 \times 1$$

Thus, 21 divides $4^{n+1} + 5^{2n-1}$ for $n = 1$

- Induction Hypothesis: Let for $n = k$, $k \geq 1$, we have

$$21 \text{ divides } 4^{k+1} + 5^{2k-1}$$

So,

$$4^{k+1} + 5^{2k-1} = 21m \text{ for some } m \in \mathbb{Z}$$

- Induction Step: For $n = k + 1$

$$4^{n+1} + 5^{2n-1} = 4^{(k+1)+1} + 5^{2(k+1)-1}$$

$$4^{k+2} + 5^{2k+1} = 4(4^{k+1}) + 25(5^{2k-1})$$

$$4^{k+2} + 5^{2k+1} = 4(21m - 5^{2k-1}) + 25(5^{2k-1})$$

$$4^{k+2} + 5^{2k+1} = 4(21m) + 21(5^{2k-1})$$

$$4^{k+2} + 5^{2k+1} = 21(4m + 5^{2k-1}) = 21p$$

for

$$p = 4m + 5^{2k-1}$$

Thus, by induction, we have 21 divides $4^{n+1} + 5^{2n-1} \forall n \in \mathbb{Z}^+$ □

The above proof technique is another powerful tool known as mathematical induction.

2.2 Mathematical Induction as an Axiom

We can define the induction axiom as follows.

Let $P(n)$ be a property of non-negative integers. If

- $P(i)$ is true (Base case)
- $\forall k \geq i, P(k) \rightarrow P(k + 1)$

Then, $P(n)$ holds $\forall n \in \mathbb{Z}^+, n \geq i$

Induction axiom can then be used to prove an important theorem in computer science known as the Well Ordering Principle.

2.3 The Well Ordering Principle

Every non-empty set of non-negative integers has a smallest element.

Proof.

- Base Case: For a set of 1 non-negative integer, the integer itself is obviously the smallest element.
- Induction Hypothesis: For any set of k non-negative integers, let there exist a smallest element.
- Induction Step: Consider any set of $k + 1$ non-negative integers, say S_0 . Let $n_0 \in S_0$. Now consider the set $S_1 = S_0 - \{n_0\}$. S_1 is a set of k non-negative integers, thus S_1 has a smallest element, say n_1 .

Now, if $n_1 < n_0$, then n_1 will be the smallest element of the set

S_0 . Else n_0 will be the smallest element of S_0 . In either case, S_0 will have a smallest element.

Thus, $\forall n \in \mathbb{Z}^+$, any set of n non-negative integers will have a smallest element. $\square$

2.4 Induction as a theorem : WOP implies Induction

Theorem 6. *Let $P(n)$ be a property of non-negative integers. If*

- $P(i)$ is true (Base case)
- $\forall k \geq i, P(k) \rightarrow P(k+1)$

Then, $P(n)$ holds $\forall n \in \mathbb{Z}^+, n \geq i$

Proof. We will use contradiction. Let us assume induction is not true. This means that,

- $P(i)$ is true (Base case)
- $\forall k \geq i, P(k) \rightarrow P(k+1)$

But, $\exists n \in \mathbb{Z}^+, n \geq i$, such that $P(n)$ is not true.

Then consider $\mathbb{S} = \{i \in \mathbb{N} | P(i) \text{ is not true}\}$

Since $\mathbb{S}$ is non-empty, by WOP it must have a smallest element. Let that element be n_0 . So, $P(n_0)$ is not true. This implies that $P(i)$ is true $\forall i < n_0$. Thus $P(n_0 - 1)$ is true. Using our induction step, $P(n_0 - 1) \rightarrow P(n_0)$, so $P(n_0)$ is true. This is a contradiction, and thus our assumption must be wrong.

Thus, $\forall n \in \mathbb{Z}^+, n \geq i, P(n)$ is true. $\square$

Theorem 7. *Any integer > 1 can be written as a product of prime numbers.*

Proof. Proof by Contradiction.

Let us assume there exist

$\$ = \{n \in \mathbb{Z}^+, n > 1 \mid n \text{ cannot be written as a product of primes}\}$

Since $\$$ is non empty, there exists a smallest element in $\$$. Call it n_0 .

First n_0 can't be prime, as then it can be written as a product of primes as $n_0 = n_0$.

So, n_0 can be written as

$n_0 = a \times b$, where $1 < a, b < n$

Since a and b are smaller than n , they can be written as a product of one or more primes.

$a = p_1 p_2 p_3 \dots p_k$ and $b = q_1 q_2 q_3 \dots q_m$ for $k, m \geq 1$

But then $n_0 = p_1 p_2 p_3 \dots p_k \cdot q_1 q_2 q_3 \dots q_m$ which is a contradiction.

Thus, any integer > 1 can be written as a product of prime numbers. $\square$

Theorem 8. *Any integer > 1 can be written as a "unique" product of one or more primes.*

Proof. Let us assume that there exists an integer > 1 that cannot be written as a "unique" product of one or more primes.

Let us call the set of all such integers $\mathbb{S}$. Clearly, $\mathbb{S} \neq \emptyset$

By WOP, there exists a smallest element in $\mathbb{S}$, say s .

Then, $s = p_1 \dots p_n = q_1 \dots q_m$,

where each $p_i \neq q_j \ \forall i \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$ and $j \in \{1, 2, \dots, m\}$

Without loss of generality, assume $p_1 < q_1$. Then, $s = p_1 \times P = q_1 \times Q$ for some $P > Q$.

Then, $s - p_1 Q = p_1(P - Q) = (q_1 - p_1)Q < s$, which implies that $(q_1 - p_1) < s$ and $Q < s$.

So $(q_1 - p_1)$ and Q must have a unique prime factorization, and thus p_1 must occur in it.

If p_1 occurs in the factorization of Q , then $p_1 = q_j$ violates our hypothesis.

If p_1 occurs in the factorization of $q_1 - p_1$, then p_1 must divide q_1 which contradicts the fact that both p_1 and q_1 are prime.

Hence, we have a contradiction, which means that our original claim was false. Thus, any integer > 1 can be written as a unique product of one or more primes. $\square$

Theorem 9. *For any $m, n \in \mathbb{N}$, $m \neq 0$, , there exists a quotient q and remainder r ($q, r \in \mathbb{N}$), such that*

$$n = q \times m + r, \quad 0 \leq r < m$$

Proof. Fix any $m > 0$, we use strong induction on n .

- Base case : for $n = \{0, \dots, m - 1\}$ we have $n = 0 \times m + n$.

Thus Base case follows.

- Induction Step : We will prove for all $k \geq m$

Hypothesis : Let $\forall n \in \mathbb{N}$, $n \leq k$, $\exists q, r \in \mathbb{N}$ such that
 $n = q \times m + r$, $0 \leq r < m$

Then consider $0 \leq k - m + 1 \leq k$, thus we can use the induction hypothesis on $k - m + 1$.

$$k - m + 1 = q' \times m + r', \quad 0 \leq r' < m$$

Now select $q^* = q' + 1$ and $r^* = r'$, then

$$k + 1 = q^* \times m + r^*, \quad 0 \leq r^* < m$$

Thus, by induction, for any $m, n \in \mathbb{N}$, $m \neq 0$, , there exists a quotient q and remainder r ($q, r \in \mathbb{N}$), such that

$$n = q \times m + r, \quad 0 \leq r < m$$

□

3 Basic Structures : Sets and Functions

3.1 Sets

A set is an unordered collection of objects. The objects of a set are called its elements.

Formally, let P be a property. Then, any collection of objects that satisfy P is a set, i.e., $\mathbb{S} = \{x \mid P(x)\}$

3.2 Some properties of sets

- $\mathbb{A} \subseteq \mathbb{B} \longleftrightarrow \forall x \in \mathbb{A}, (x \in \mathbb{B})$
- $\mathbb{A} \times \mathbb{B} = \{(a, b) \mid a \in \mathbb{A} \wedge b \in \mathbb{B}\}$
- $\mathbb{A} \cup \mathbb{B} = \{x \mid x \in \mathbb{A} \vee x \in \mathbb{B}\}$
- $\mathbb{A} \cap \mathbb{B} = \{x \mid x \in \mathbb{A} \wedge x \in \mathbb{B}\}$
- Empty set is denoted by ϕ
- Power set of $\mathbb{A} = \mathcal{P}(\mathbb{A}) = \{X \mid X \subseteq \mathbb{A}\}$
- If U is the universal set, then $\mathbb{A}^C = U - \mathbb{A} = \{x \mid x \in U \wedge x \notin \mathbb{A}\}$

3.3 Functions

Let $\mathbb{A}$ and $\mathbb{B}$ be two sets. A function f from $\mathbb{A}$ to $\mathbb{B}$ is an assignment of exactly one element of $\mathbb{B}$ to each element of $\mathbb{A}$.

$f : \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B}$ is a subset R of $\mathbb{A} \times \mathbb{B}$ such that

1. $\forall a \in \mathbb{A}, \exists b \in \mathbb{B}$ such that $(a, b) \in R$
2. If $(a, b) \in R$ and $(a, c) \in R$ then $b = c$

If $f : \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B}$ is a bijective function, then we can define its inverse $f^{-1} : \mathbb{B} \rightarrow \mathbb{A}$, defined as $f^{-1}(b) = a \iff f(a) = b$

If f is a bijection, then $f^{-1}(f(x)) = f(f^{-1}(x)) = x$, i.e. $f \circ f^{-1}(x) = f^{-1} \circ f(x) = x$

3.3.1 Functions on finite sets

If $\mathbb{A}$ and $\mathbb{B}$ are two finite sets such that $f : \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B}$ is a function from $\mathbb{A}$ to $\mathbb{B}$ then,

- f is injective $\rightarrow |\mathbb{A}| \leq |\mathbb{B}|$
- f is surjective $\rightarrow |\mathbb{A}| \geq |\mathbb{B}|$
- f is bijective $\rightarrow |\mathbb{A}| = |\mathbb{B}|$

3.3.2 Some important theorems : True for both finite and infinite sets

- $(\exists \text{ bij from } \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B} \wedge \exists \text{ bij from } \mathbb{B} \rightarrow C) \rightarrow (\exists \text{ bij from } \mathbb{A} \rightarrow C)$
- $(\exists \text{ bij from } \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B}) \rightarrow (\exists \text{ bij from } \mathbb{B} \rightarrow \mathbb{A})$

Theorem 10 (Schroder-Bernstein Theorem).

$$(\exists \text{ inj from } \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B} \wedge \exists \text{ inj from } \mathbb{B} \rightarrow \mathbb{A}) \rightarrow (\exists \text{ bij from } \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B})$$

$$(\exists \text{ surj from } \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B} \wedge \exists \text{ surj from } \mathbb{B} \rightarrow \mathbb{A}) \rightarrow (\exists \text{ bij from } \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B})$$

3.4 Infinite Sets

3.4.1 Definition of Infinite Set

Theorem 11. *Let $\mathbb{A}$ be a set, and $b \notin \mathbb{A}$. $\mathbb{A}$ is infinite $\longleftrightarrow \exists \text{ bij from } \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{A} \cup \{b\}$*

Proof. If $\mathbb{A}$ is infinite, then $\mathbb{A} \neq \phi$, so let $a_0 \in \mathbb{A}$. Define $f(a_0) = b$.

Now $\mathbb{A} - \{a_0\}$ is infinite, so $\mathbb{A} - \{a_0\} \neq \phi$, so let $a_1 \in \mathbb{A} - \{a_0\}$. Define $f(a_1) = a_0$.

$\forall i \in \mathbb{N}, i \geq 1, \mathbb{A} - \{a_0, \dots, a_{i-1}\}$ is infinite and hence non-empty. Then, define $f(a_i) = a_{i-1}$.

Collecting all such a_i 's, we get $\mathbb{A}' = \{a_i \in \mathbb{A} \mid i \in \mathbb{N}\}, \mathbb{A}' \subseteq \mathbb{A}$.

Now, if $\forall a \in \mathbb{A}, a \notin \mathbb{A}'$, we define $f(a) = a$, then f will become a bijection. $\square$

3.4.2 Important Takeaways

- Even if $\mathbb{A}, \mathbb{B}$ are infinite, $\mathbb{A} \subsetneq \mathbb{B}$, there can be a bijection from $\mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B}$. That is, $\mathbb{A}$ and $\mathbb{B}$ will have the same "cardinality".
- From any set $\mathbb{A}$, there is a surjection from $\mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$ (Most Important).
- Finite unions of countable sets are countable.
- To show that an infinite set $\mathbb{S}$ is countable, it is enough to show that:
 - either $\exists \text{inj}$ from $\mathbb{S} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$
 - or $\exists \text{surj}$ from $\mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{S}$

3.5 Some Important Bijections on Infinite Sets

3.5.1 Bijection from $\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} -2x & x \leq 0 \\ 2x - 1 & x > 0 \end{cases}$$

3.5.2 Bijection from $\mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$

$$f(a, b) = \frac{(a + b)(a + b + 1)}{2} + b$$

3.5.3 Bijection from $\mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N}$

$$f(x) = (a, b)$$

where

$$x = 2^a(2b + 1) - 1$$

3.5.4 Bijection from $\mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$

$$f(a, b, c) = \frac{\left(\frac{(a+b)(a+b+1)}{2} + b + c\right) \left(\frac{(a+b)(a+b+1)}{2} + b + c + 1\right)}{2} + c$$

3.5.5 Bijection from $\mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N}$

$$f(x) = (a, b, c)$$

where

$$x = 2^{(2^a(2b+1)-1)}(2c + 1) - 1$$

3.5.6 Proving the inexistence of a bijection

Theorem 12. *There does not exist any bijection from $\mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$*

Proof. For the sake of contradiction, let us say there exists such a bijection, namely $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$. This means that we can enumerate all the real numbers in a table side by side of natural numbers. ie,

$$\forall y \in \mathbb{R} \exists x \in \mathbb{N}, f(x) = y$$

Let a_i denote the digit at $10^{-(i+1)}$ th place in $f(i)$, $i \in \mathbb{N}$. Define b_i as

$$b_i = \begin{cases} a_i + 1 & a_i < 9 \\ 0 & a_i = 9 \end{cases}$$

and then define a real number p as

$$p = \sum_{i=0}^{\infty} b_i \times 10^{-(i+1)}$$

Then, $p - f(i) \neq 0$, ie, $p \neq f(i) \forall i \in \mathbb{N}$

But this contradicts our original claim that f is a bijection. Thus, our assumption must be wrong and so, there does not exist any bijection from $\mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$ $\square$

Similarly we can prove the inexistence of bijection from $\mathcal{P}(\mathbb{N}) \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$.

3.5.7 Proving the existence of a bijection

Theorem 13. *There exists a bijection from $\mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathcal{P}(\mathbb{N})$.*

Proof. $\square$

3.5.8 Cartesian product of countable sets

Theorem 14. *Cartesian product of countable sets is countable.*

Proof. Let $\mathbb{A}$ and $\mathbb{B}$ be countably infinite. Then define a bijection $f : \mathbb{A} \times \mathbb{B} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$ as

$$f(a_i, b_j) = \left(\sum_{k=1}^{i+j} k \right) + j$$

$\square$

3.5.9 Are Rationals countable??

Theorem 15. *There exists a bijection from $\mathbb{Q} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$*

Proof. First, we will show that there exists an injection from $\mathbb{Q} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$.

Let the rational number be given as $s \times \frac{p}{q}$ where $p, q \in \mathbb{N}$ and are co-prime, $q \neq 0$ and $s = -1$ or 1 depending on the sign of the rational number.

Consider the mapping,

$$f\left(s \times \frac{p}{q}\right) = 2^p 3^q 5^{s+1}$$

The fundamental theorem of arithmetic guarantees that the above mapping is injective. So, there exists an injection from $\mathbb{Q} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$.

Also, since $\mathbb{Q}$ is infinite, we also know that there exists an injection from $\mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{Q}$. Thus by Schroder-Bernstein Theorem, there exists a bijection from $\mathbb{Q} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$.

Thus, rationals are countable. □

3.6 Cantor's Theorem and Cantor's Continuum Hypothesis

Theorem 16 (Cantor's Theorem). *There exists no bijection from $\mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathcal{P}(\mathbb{N})$. Since there exists a surjection from $\mathcal{P}(\mathbb{N}) \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$, the cardinality of $\mathcal{P}(\mathbb{N})$ is strictly greater than that of $\mathbb{N}$.*

Cantor's continuum hypothesis states that there exists no set whose cardinality is strictly between $\mathbb{N}$ and $\mathcal{P}(\mathbb{N})$.

3.7 Relations

A Relation R from $\mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{B}$ is a subset of $\mathbb{A} \times \mathbb{B}$. If $(a, b) \in R$, then we can write it as $a R b$. All functions are relations but not all relations are functions.

3.7.1 Partitions of a set

A partition of a set $\mathbb{S}$ is a set $\mathbb{P} \subset \mathcal{P}(\mathbb{S})$ such that:

- $\mathbb{S}' \in \mathbb{P} \rightarrow \mathbb{S}' \neq \phi$
- $\bigcup_{\mathbb{S}' \in \mathbb{P}} \mathbb{S}' = \mathbb{S}$, ie, the union of the elements of a partition covers the entire set.
- If $\mathbb{S}_1, \mathbb{S}_2 \in \mathbb{P}$, then $\mathbb{S}_1 \cap \mathbb{S}_2 = \phi$, ie, the sets are disjoint.

If we define a partition on a set and then define a relation such that all elements in a partition are related to each other, we get a special type of relation.

3.7.2 Relation generated by partitions

Relations generated by partitions follow some special properties :

- Reflexivity : $\forall a \in \mathbb{A}, (a, a) \in R$
- Symmetry : $\forall a, b \in \mathbb{A}, (a, b) \in R \rightarrow (b, a) \in R$
- Transitivity : $\forall a, b, c \in \mathbb{A}, (a, b) \in R \wedge (b, c) \in R \rightarrow (a, c) \in R$

A relation satisfying the above conditions is called an equivalence relation. Thus, from a partition we get an equivalence relation.

3.7.3 Equivalence Classes

Let R be an equivalence relation on set $\mathbb{S}$, and let $a \in \mathbb{S}$. The equivalence class of a , denoted as $[a]$ is defined as,

$$[a] = \{b \in \mathbb{S} \mid (a, b) \in R\}$$

Theorem 17.

$$aRb \iff [a] = [b] \iff [a] \cap [b] \neq \phi$$

Theorem 18. *If R is an equivalence relation on $\mathbb{S}$, then the equivalence classes of R form a partition of $\mathbb{S}$. In contrast, given a partition P of a set $\mathbb{S}$, there exists an equivalence relation R whose equivalence classes are exactly the sets of P .*

The proof of above theorem is quite simple and hence, left as an exercise to the reader.

3.7.4 Defining new Objects through equivalence relations

- Consider $R = \{((a, b), (c, d)) \mid (a, b), (c, d) \in \mathbb{Z} \times \mathbb{Z} / \{0\}, (ad = bc)\}$

Then the equivalence classes of R define rational numbers. Eg: $(2, 4) \in [(1, 2)]$ is equivalent to saying $\frac{2}{4} = \frac{1}{2}$

Similarly, equivalence classes of

$R = \{((a, b), (c, d)) \mid (a, b), (c, d) \in \mathbb{N} \times \mathbb{N}, (a + d = b + c)\}$ define integers.

- Consider the relation

$$R([0, 1]) = \{aRb \mid a, b \in [0, 1], a = b \text{ or } (a, b) = (0, 1) \text{ or } (1, 0)\}$$

If we imagine the interval $[0, 1]$ as a thread of length 1, then the above relation describes a loop where we have glued the ends of the thread.

- Consider the relation

$$R([0, 1] \times [0, 1]) = \{(a, b)R(c, d) \mid (a, b) = (c, d) \text{ or } b = d, c = 0, a = 1 \text{ or } b = d, a = 0, c = 1\}$$

Imagining $[0, 1] \times [0, 1]$ as a square of side 1, the above relation describes joining the two vertical sides of the square together to form a cylinder.

- Similarly we can describe a torus through relations. Give it a try!

Spoiler:

Consider the relation

$$R([0, 1] \times [0, 1]) = \{(a, b)R(c, d) \mid (a, b) = (c, d) \text{ or } b = d, c = 0, a = 1 \text{ or } b = d, a = 0, c = 1 \text{ or } a = c, b = 0, d = 1 \text{ or } a = c, d = 0, b = 1 \text{ or } a, b, c, d \in \{0, 1\}\}$$

4 Basic Structures : Posets

4.1 Anti-Symmetry

Consider the relation $R = \{(a, b) \mid a, b \in \mathbb{Z}, a \leq b\}$. This relation is reflexive and transitive but not symmetric. In fact, it is "Anti-Symmetric".

A relation R on a set $\mathcal{S}$ is called anti-symmetric if $\forall a, b \in \mathcal{S}, (aRb \wedge bRa) \rightarrow a = b$.

Examples of anti-symmetric relations are:

- $R(\mathbb{Z}) = \{(a, b) \mid a, b \in \mathbb{Z}, a \leq b\}$
- $R(\mathcal{P}(\mathcal{S})) = \{(\mathbb{A}, \mathbb{B}) \mid \mathbb{A}, \mathbb{B} \in \mathcal{P}(\mathcal{S}), \mathbb{A} \subseteq \mathbb{B}\}$

4.2 Partial Orders

A Partial Order is a relation which is reflexive, transitive and anti-symmetric. Partial orders are denoted by $a \preceq b$ instead of aRb .

There can be a case where some elements in a partial order may not be comparable by the operator defined by the order. That is why it is called a partial order.

A Total Order is then a Partial Order $\preceq$ on a set $\mathcal{S}$ in which every pair of elements is comparable.

In the above two examples, the first one is a total order while the second one is not (can you see why?).

4.3 Partially Ordered Sets : Posets

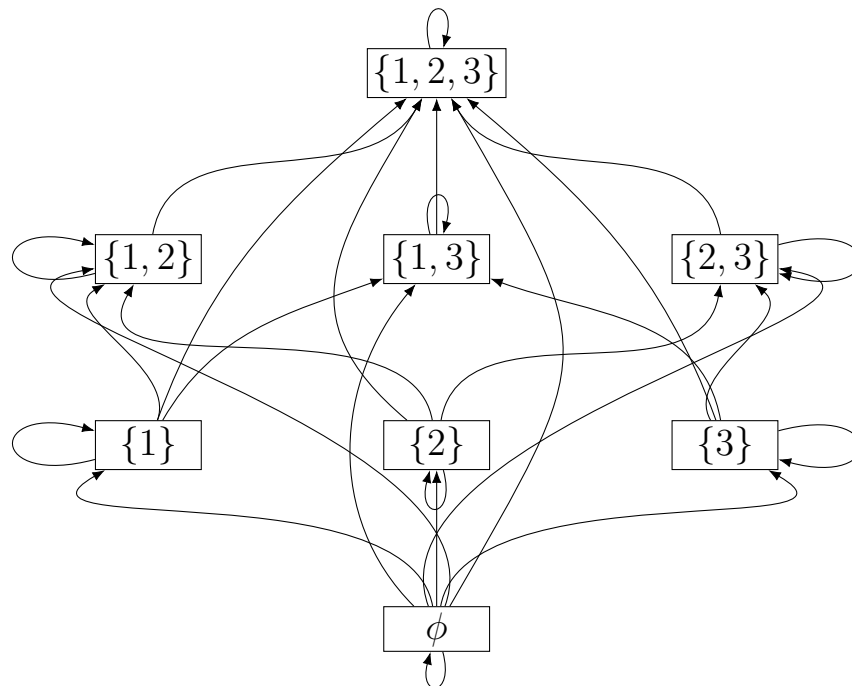
A set $\mathcal{S}$ together with a partial order $\preceq$ defined on it, is called a partially ordered set, or a poset, denoted as $(\mathcal{S}, \preceq)$.

Examples of Posets : $(\mathbb{Z}, \leq)$, $(\mathbb{Z}^+, |)$, $(\mathcal{P}(\mathcal{S}), \subseteq)$ etc.

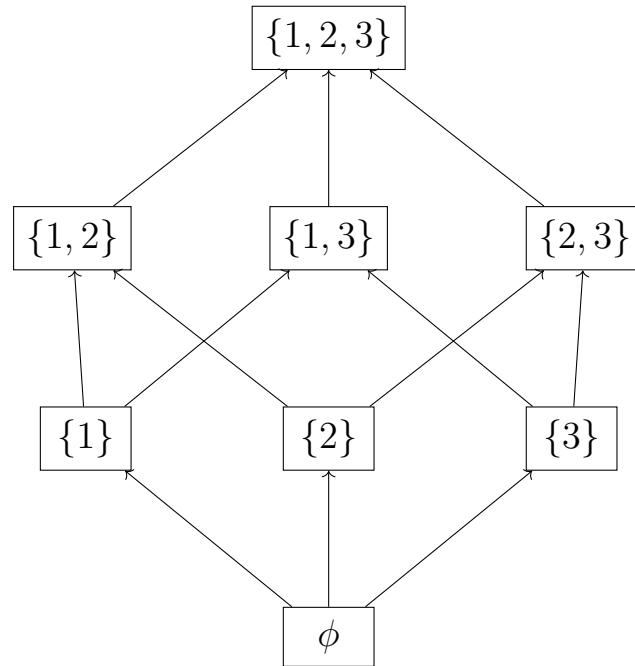
4.3.1 Graphical Representation of a Poset

Posets can be represented graphically as shown :

Graph of the Poset $(\mathcal{P}(\{1, 2, 3\}), \subseteq)$



The above directed tree becomes a bit messy for bigger posets. Thus we draw what is called a "Hasse Diagram" to keep things neat.



In a Hasse diagram, the edges showing reflexivity and transitivity are omitted. It shows only those $x \preceq y$ where there exists no z such that $x \preceq z \preceq y$. The reflexive-transitive closure of Hasse diagram gives back the original graph of the poset.

4.4 Chains and Anti-Chains

4.4.1 Chains

Let $(S, \preceq)$ be a poset. Then a subset $A \subseteq S$ is called a chain if

$$\forall a, b \in A, a \preceq b \oplus b \preceq a$$

That is, all pair of elements must be related to each other through the partial order. In other words, **a chain is a totally ordered subset of a partial order.**

4.4.2 Anti-Chains

Let $(\mathbb{S}, \preceq)$ be a poset. Then a subset $\mathbb{A} \subseteq \mathbb{S}$ is called an anti-chain if

$$\forall a, b \in \mathbb{A}, a \neq b, \neg(a \preceq b) \wedge \neg(b \preceq a)$$

That is, none of the elements in an anti-chain are related to each other through the partial order.

Example : In the poset $(\{1, 2, 3\}, \subseteq)$, the set $\{\phi, \{1\}, \{1, 2\}, \{1, 2, 3\}\}$ is a chain while the set $\{\{1, 2\}, \{2, 3\}, \{1, 3\}\}$ is an anti-chain.

4.5 Topological Sort

A Topological Sort or a Linearization of a poset $(\mathbb{S}, \preceq)$ is a totally ordered set $(\mathbb{S}, \preceq_t)$ with a total order $\preceq_t$ defined on it such that $x \preceq y \rightarrow x \preceq_t y$.